

The Musicians

Jazz is what its musicians and singers make it. The player is the centre of its world. We must therefore try to discover what sort of man, or more rarely woman, the jazz artist is. This is in some respects easy, in others difficult. No aspect of jazz is better documented than its biography. There are, at a guess, biographical data of perhaps two or three thousand musicians, singers, and other jazz entertainers in print somewhere or other. However, though these list the musical careers of their subjects in considerable detail, supplemented by the fantastically laborious and scholarly discographies, they neglect other aspects of their lives almost totally. Unless we know a musician personally we rarely even know whether he was married or when, and whether he has or had children. The biographical information about the social origins of musicians is as casual and unsystematic as the information about their geographical origin is meticulous. Nevertheless, we know enough to reconstruct the portrait of both black and white musicians pretty well, even in the more obscure phases of jazz. The two must be kept apart, although the jazz musician has developed a common pattern of personality, which does not depend on his skin; for the social origins of white and black artists are very different, at least in the earlier phases of jazz, and so is the part they play in their respective communities. Louis Armstrong, like Joe Louis or Sugar Ray Robinson, can become the symbol and hero of all Harlem. No white jazz musician has ever become the symbol and hero of more than a minority of young rebels.

Let us consider the black musician first. The obvious and dominant fact about the earliest jazz is that it was a poor man's music, and a music of the 'undeserving' and unrespectable poor at that. At the turn of the century a respectable black preacher's family in the South, like that of W. C. Handy's father, was at least as shocked at the idea that its son should

become a musician as a lower-middle-class or middle-class white family. In the Southern countryside as well as in the towns—perhaps more than in the towns—the line between godly and worldly music was as sharp as in Calvinist Dumfriesshire. The godly man sang gospel songs, and put away Satan's tunes like the blues with horror and disgust. (When John and Alan Lomax collected their folk-songs in the Southern penitentiaries they had the utmost difficulty in persuading former worldlings who had become hardshell Baptists or Pentecostal Holiness people to dig out their morally tainted musical past.) That the modern jazz-lover has made both work-songs and spirituals into part of the jazz repertoire is one of the many ironies of our subject, but one not shared by devout artists like Miss Mahalia Jackson, who has steadfastly refused, through the years, to sing for anything but the glory of the Lord, or in company with reprobate music. Naturally the barriers against jazz were less high among blacks than among whites. Beside the overwhelming barrier of colour in a country of racial discrimination, all others seem small and surmountable: the ghetto breeds its own internal fluidity, as well as its own compartments. Moreover, there have been up to the present so few ways in which American blacks might rise in wealth, achievement, and social status, that even a very plebeian one like jazz was not to be neglected, all the more so as it is a known fact that the world of entertainment for the poor is much more egalitarian than the culture of the rich. Today, at a time when mixed bands under a black leader are a commonplace in jazz, there is hardly yet a single black conductor of an American symphony orchestra or leader of a chamber-music ensemble, and few black symphonic players. It is therefore natural that, from the beginning, some middle-class blacks entered jazz. Indeed, among the musicians for whom a musical training, or general education, or simply an initial degree of relative self-confidence are important assets—composers, arrangers, band-leaders—the middle class black played a disproportionately large part almost from the beginning. Most of the leading jazz composer-arrangers—Handy, Carter, Morton, Redman, Ellington, Sy Oliver—and many of the leaders of the famous early large black bands—Fletcher Henderson, Ellington, Redman, Lunceford, Count Basie—are or were of middle-class origins.* (This is in marked contrast to the leaders of the

famous large white jazz or semi-jazz bands, who are mainly of relatively much lower social standing, like the Dorsey brothers, who came from the Pennsylvania mines; Ben Pollack and Benny Goodman, who came from the Chicago Hull House slum settlement school; Harry James, who came from circus life; Glenn Miller, Woody Herman, Ted Lewis, Paul Whiteman. The white equivalents of Ellington or Henderson had other careers open to them than band-leading.)

But on the whole the early jazz was poor men's music, or the music of traditional show folk, whose social standing was not much above vagabonds'. Admittedly even among the black poor there are distinctions. The instrumental players other than guitarists and pianists were perhaps not of quite such humble social origins as the blues singers and players, who clearly represent the most pauperized, oppressed, and vagrant segment of the black people. A foot-loose rural guitar-picker like Leadbelly, in and out of jail, was despised, if only as a hayseed, even by the poorest street musicians of New Orleans. The 'blind man at the corner singing the *Beale Street Blues*' or the boys who led him along Southern roads, like the now famous Josh White, the itinerant bar-room pianists with flamboyant nicknames like Pinetop Smith, Speckled Red, Cripple Clarence Lofton, or Little Brother, were on the margins of even black society. It is no accident that the first blues player and singer whom W. C. Handy heard in 1903 was 'a lean, loose-jointed Negro (who) had commenced plunking a guitar beside me while I slept. His clothes were in rags; his feet peeped out of his shoes.... As he played, he pressed a knife on the strings of the guitar in a manner popularized by Hawaiian guitarists who used steel bars.'

Nor is it an accident that the man sang about

Goin' where the Southern cross the Yellow Dog,

i.e. to Moorehead, Miss., where the Southern and Yazoo Delta railroads cross, where the penitentiary lay, which the singer probably knew from inside. (Handy was later to make one of the classics of jazz, the *Yellow Dog Blues*, out of this memory.) The women singers, though their musical status was to be much higher than the men's, came from comparable social depths. If they came from show-folk families, like Ma

Rainey, Ethel Waters, and Billie Holiday, they were lucky. Few great artists have come from such appalling slum poverty as the great Bessie Smith; and the social status (and perhaps the original profession) of many blues singers is indicated by the nickname of Bertha 'Chippie' Hill; for a chippy is a prostitute.

Except for the peculiar group of New Orleans Creoles, the instrumental musicians came from equally modest social backgrounds. The *gens de couleur* were 'bricklayers and carpenters and cigar makers and plasterers. Some had little businesses on their own—coal and wood and vegetable stores',¹ i.e. they were skilled workers and petty artisans, at least until they became full-time professionals. Alphonse Picou (clarinet) was the son of a cigar maker, apprenticed to a tinsmith and later a joiner. Barney Bigard (clarinet) began with cigar-making and engraving. Sidney Bechet knew enough to open a tailor's shop during the slump. But the Creoles, former free men depressed into the ranks of the labourers and immigrants by segregation, were a unique local group, and even in New Orleans those who got their non-musical living driving a coal cart, like Louis Armstrong, or working on the docks, like George Lewis, were at least as numerous as the Creole musicians, though less articulate.[‡] Outside New Orleans those of unskilled status were the vast majority.

At all events, the original jazz players belonged to the working class which, since blacks are largely confined to labouring jobs, meant the unskilled. When they lost their jobs or fell out of fashion, they would naturally drop back into the characteristic occupations of the working-class black. Papa Mutt Carey would become a postman and porter in California, Albert Nicholas would work on the New York subway and in the post office, Natty Dominique as an airport red-cap, King Oliver as a pool-room attendant, Bunk Johnson, an uptown man (the poorer and less respected blacks lived uptown) returned to the country and the sugar-cane. They were working men and aware of it, for, as Johnny St Cyr (banjo) put it:

A jazz musician have to be a working-class man, out in the open all the time, healthy and strong. That's what's wrong today; these

new guys haven't got the force. They don't *like* to play all night; they don't think they *can* play unless they're loaded. But a working man have the *power* to play hot, whisky or no whisky. You see, the average working man is very musical. Playing music for him is just relaxing. He get as much kick out of playing as other folks get out of dancing.²

Perhaps St Cyr's is an idealized picture of the old days of transition to professionalism, even in New Orleans, but the social situation it paints is clear.

The artist sprung from the unskilled poor, and playing for the poor is in a peculiar social position. In the world from which he comes and in which he works 'entertainment' (which means any personal talent, or gift sold for the public to watch, hear, or otherwise enjoy, from one's body to one's soul) is not merely a way of earning a living, but far and away the most important way of making one's individual path in the world, rivalled only by crime and 'polities', with religion, of the type evolved by poor men for themselves, trailing a little behind. It is essential to remember this. The star musician, dancer, singer, comedian, boxer, or bullfighter is not merely a success among this sporting or artist public, but the potential first citizen of his community or his people. A Caruso among the poor of Naples, a Marie Lloyd in the East End, a Gracie Fields in Rochdale, a Jack Johnson, Joe Louis, or Sugar Ray in Harlem, a Louis Armstrong occupy a position far more eminent among 'their' people than a Picasso or Fonteyn in orthodox society. Among oppressed peoples such as blacks and gypsies, the entertainer is often the only member of his group who wins fame outside 'the race'. Even at a less exalted level, the moderately successful entertainer is one of the rare men or women who can escape the curse of poverty and endless unskilled drudgery, if only for a time. For the recipes for 'getting on' which have built respectable Western society since Calvin, thrift, hard work, systematic education, and the life, are not much good to those who genuinely start from bedrock, with no assets but talent, energy, strength, or looks. Every investigation into the social origins of the rich, of business and public executives, or men and women of high intellectual achievements, demonstrates the extraordinary disadvantage at which the genuinely unskilled and illiterate

are. In the arts alone can they compete on equal, perhaps on superior terms, for just as 'the best fighter is a hungry fighter', so the best entertainer is the one for whom his art is the only possible way out of squalor and oppression into relative freedom. But for the poor 'the arts' mean commercial entertainment, and commercial entertainment in the nineteenth and early twentieth centuries meant work in one or other of those semi-ghettoes which all great cities develop as 'entertainment districts', and where music halls, brothels, night clubs, saloons, boxers' gymnasiums, variety agencies, and their denizens rubbed shoulders: on Beale Street in Memphis, on Seventh Avenue or Lenox in Harlem, Twelfth and Eighteenth Streets in Kansas City, from Montmartre to the boulevards in Paris, behind the Paralelo in Barcelona, and so on.

The jazz musician was therefore potentially a king or duke, but his Versailles was on the Place Pigalle, his subjects lived in the slums, and his rival potentates or peers were (black) gangsters and crooked politicians, professional gamblers and fighters, fancy women, and occasionally great preachers, lay or religious. He was, of course, a professional and a craftsman; and as we have seen, his professionalism and craftsmanship were by far the most important factors in his life, though even they necessarily threw him into the company of the others who worked by night and slept or relaxed by day, and thus separated him from the ordinary citizen. But his mode of behaviour was at least equally determined by his social origins and his social role in the community of the poor, or more precisely, of the labourers and subproletarians of the slums over whom they reigned.

For instance, if he was often bohemian in his ways, it was not on the pattern of the standard bohemia of the nineteenth-century arts, which is at bottom the scale of values of the lower-middle class turned inside out, but on the pattern of the unskilled labourer magnified. He did not have the nineteenth-century bohemians' horror of 'respectable' manual work. When Sidney Bechet, the great reed man was broke in the thirties, he started his tailors's shop, and Tommy Ladnier, whose trumpet could suggest more blues with a single note than any other, shined the shoes of the customers. He did not react against the values of clerks and shopkeepers by neglecting himself or dressing sloppily. On the contrary, he was an enthusiastic and flamboyant dresser, regarding his dress as a

symbol of wealth and social status, like the cowboy, the navvy, the sailor, and other casual but occasionally flush labourers. If he was a free spender it was for the same reason—casual earnings breed casual spending—and because his social standing in his world depended on behaving like a king. If he developed the over-life-size gestures and habits of the superman—the limitless appetite for women and whisky, the passions and capriciousness of the *prima donna* (who has herself, as a type, sprung from a similar social milieu)—it was not only because to the successful New Orleans trumpeter or classic blues singer or dancer all the whisky and all the women (or, if she was a woman, all the men) were freely available, but because he had to live up to his part. For the star was what every slum child and drudge might become: the king or queen of the poor, because the poor person writ large. We see him first, surrounded by legendary mist, as Buddy Bolden, the demon barber of Franklin Street, the blackest of black men, as the tale goes, ‘a pure Negro’ (for darkness means low status, even among blacks), who ‘found his cornet on the street.’ We hear him knocking with his trumpet on the floor of the Odd Fellows’ Hall to give the beat, holding it up, pausing to be sure of his embouchure, and leading his band into the wonderful blues of the poorest of poor prostitutes, *Make me a pallet on your floor*, while the audience yelled out, ‘Oh, Mr Bolden (note the Mister), play it for us, oh Buddy, play it!’³ In the legend he played so loudly that ‘on some nights you could hear his horn ten mile away’. He could not read a note of music, and the women fought for the privilege of carrying his cornet. ‘He was crazy for wine and women and vice versa.’ At the age of twenty-nine he went mad, and lived the rest of his life (until 1931) in a lunatic asylum with *dementia praecox*. We see him again, in the classical version of the over-life-size music-hall star, as Fats Waller, the pianist who started the day with eight fingers of whisky and threw his fantastic talent to the winds. ‘I’ve seen Fats Waller enter a place’, says Louis Armstrong, ‘and all the people in the joint (I mean the place) would rave, and you could see a gladness in their faces....’⁴ He would compose the best part of a musical show while the girls were rehearsing their dance routine, meanwhile ‘bubbling over with so many stories and funny remarks that those girls could hardly hoof it for laughing’, ‘a volcano, alright, alone in

his class'. He earned millions and threw them away: 'he kept broke because he was always balling and having a good time and just didn't care'.⁵ He laughed and cried louder than anyone, he drank and made love more, he slept less, he was fatter, he welshed on more advances and played more trashy music better than anyone. He died at the age of thirty-nine in 1943, at the peak of his career.

Last, but most important, he did not in the early stages share the most striking characteristic of the orthodox nineteenth-century artist, the contempt for his public. His model was not Rimbaud but Marie Lloyd or Johann Strauss. The frontier between the 'hip' people and the 'squares' (though there is no evidence that these terms were used in New Orleans times) did not run between the artist and the chosen few who could 'dig' him on one side, the idiots and the bourgeois on the other. It ran between the artist and his public, the outcast community of the 'undeserving poor' on one side, and the respectable world on the other. It was the line which, in the 1890s, divided the music-hall artists, the gardees, the prostitutes, and the enthusiasts from the blue-nosed, teetotal, nonconformist spoilsports of the London County Council who wanted to license the halls and get the girls out of the Empire promenade. Why indeed should the artist feel misunderstood? True, the public did not appreciate the technical achievements of the musician and, I dare say, then as now tended to applaud loudness or emotion rather than musicianship. But they liked the music, they danced to it like mad, and there were always plenty of them, from the girls in the honky-tonks after business was over to the audiences in the black theatres, to sway and cry at the blues. When geniuses like Louis Armstrong and Bessie Smith were spontaneously recognized as the king of trumpeters and the 'empress of the blues' by the applause of the public and the sales charts of record companies, there was no strong reason for the artist to feel isolated, except from the 'respectable' world in which official cultural reputations were made. But about this many of them had not heard, or did not care.[±]

The divorce between the jazz musician and the public probably began in the later 1920s. At any rate, there are clear signs that from about 1927 the straight old music lost its power to draw: even the black papers began to hint that jazz was 'on its way out'. This change of taste, which has

been more fully discussed above, no doubt hit the traditional artists hardest: Bessie Smith drank harder than ever, and supplemented her old-fashioned blues more and more widely with pornography, but even this could not stop her disappearance from the recordings and her miserable decline to the Southern backwoods shows where she had once started. Nothing went right for the great King Oliver after 1928, and his simple goodness and modest Christian resignation—Oliver was that rare phenomenon, a pioneer jazz player who was also a copy-book citizen—only make the story of his last ten years more pathetic. It would be doctrinaire to argue that the new styles now demanded even by the black public were not jazz, even though they were quite certainly much more influenced by the standards of white commercial entertainment; and it would be simply untrue to argue that most musicians minded very much what they played, so long as it swung and gave them the chance to blow out. Plenty of jazz players continued to feel at ease in their world, even when resigning themselves to a more modest place within it. The kings of New Orleans might be cornet players; the queens of Nashville or Atlanta blues singers; but the kings of the Northern black ghettos, with their more sophisticated tastes, were more likely to be music-hall dancers like Buck and Bubbles or ‘Bojangles’ Bill Robinson, boxing champions, or, if musicians, band-leaders. The street had given way to the stage. But the musician’s world was changed. To succeed under the new conditions he had to be a music-hall personality, like Louis Armstrong and Fats Waller; to have a ‘gimmick’ like the frenetic Cab Galloway with his nonsense vocals;⁸ and even in the ordinary bands he needed far better technical equipment and musical knowledge than before, equipment and knowledge only a tiny fraction of which would be appreciated by the public.

And so some players—the less adaptable ones—entered an empty world, where only their own kind appreciated them, and the others played for a public whose applause was largely irrelevant. The musician began to be alone with his music. It is significant that, whereas the kings of the pioneer instrumental jazz got their crowns by public acclamation, Coleman Hawkins, whose supremacy on the tenor sax was virtually unchallenged among musicians from his first appearance in the early

twenties for more than a decade, never led a band until 1939, and indeed found it preferable to earn his living in England and Holland for the best part of the thirties. The top player was increasingly a musician's musician, or a star only for the selected and untypical public of 'true' jazz fans. Jazz lived and flourished best no longer where it was acclaimed, but where it was tolerated and left alone, as in the speakeasies and night clubs of Kansas City. As for the old-style musician, only in the holes and corners of the South, or in the poorest Northern slums, where, as on the Chicago South Side, the immigrants congregated, could he hope to get by.

A good deal of jazz thus tended to become a musician's music, and the jazz player to be even more closely confined to a special social and intellectual world. Such was his situation when white intellectuals in the thirties discovered that jazz was intellectually reputable, and when, thanks largely to their systematic championship, it became widely popular among the whites as well as among its old black public.

At this point we must consider a factor in the black jazz musician's life which has steadily grown in conscious importance: race relations. No bar of black jazz has ever made sense to those who do not understand the black's reaction to oppression. But, as we have seen, most of the pioneer jazz musicians did not protest openly against their condition.[¶] Handy and Armstrong could write or sing about 'darkies', 'pickaninnies', and 'coal-black mummies' as if they did not realize that these are insults and fighting words to the self-conscious black. Rarely did they kick against the pricks: they did not compete with the ofays. That an Al Jolson should earn a great deal more than a Bessie Smith even at her peak was as much in the nature of things as that black artists playing the South should accept discrimination. At most a proud man like Fats Waller, whose limousine was persistently sabotaged, would refuse to go on with the tour until his booker hired him a private railway coach; but even he did not refuse to play the zone.

A generation brought up in the Northern ghettos, a couple of decades playing in the North and West, and the marvellous political awakening of all the oppressed and underprivileged in Roosevelt's America, put a new tone into the jazz-musician's instrument: open resentment. Every line of

the autobiography of the old-timer, W. C. Handy, radiated modest optimism and the conviction of gradual progress:

At the New York World's Fair, 1939–40, I saw, in small degree, a fulfillment of 'No Excellence Without Great Labour'. There, on the American Common, tablets were erected containing the names of six hundred men and women selected from all races who had contributed in some degree to American culture, and among those names I saw mine.⁶

But the new Northern or assimilated generations, those who had flowed north in their millions from 1916 on, and their children, were less contented. They had not escaped discrimination, though they had lost the stable, settled, certain community life of the South, for which even some of the most militant hankered: Big Bill Broonzy, the blues singer, claims to have gone back to his patch of land in Pine Bluff, Arkansas, after every trip north to record or perform. And the inequality they knew was, for the musician, twice as unbearable as in the past, because they now knew that *their* music, black men's music, was not simply entertainment, but serious art; many whites believing (correctly) that it was the most original and important contribution of America to world music.

Jazz, as we have seen, had always attracted a small quota of middle-class and intellectual black players, but with one major exception (Duke Ellington) they had played or arranged the music as it came, and tried neither to intellectualize nor to turn it into art-music, i.e. to compete with white music.^{||}

But from the late thirties the black jazz musician became increasingly ambitious, both to establish his superiority over the white musician, as it were officially, and to raise the status of his music by competing with white music on its own ground of elaborate and sophisticated structure and theoretical as well as practical expertise. Jazz did not, indeed, begin to attract young black intellectuals as such in any numbers until the new and ambitious versions of the music had already established themselves. The Modern Jazz Quartet, for instance, three of whose members clearly belong to the black élite (John Lewis: anthropology and music at University of New Mexico; Milt Jackson: music at Michigan State; Percy

Heath: fighter pilot and Granoff School of Music, Philadelphia) contains no player whose career began earlier than the last war years. Nevertheless, the urge to intellectualize and turn jazz into an *avant-garde* art-music is clear from the end of the thirties.

The motives for this urge may best be explained in the words of the anonymous and intellectual California musician reported by J. E. Berendt:⁷

You see we need music, we've always needed a music—our own. We have nothing else. Our writers write like the whites, our painters paint like them, our philosophers think like them. Only our musicians don't play like the whites. So we created a music for ourselves. When we had it—the old type of jazz—the whites came, and they liked it and imitated it. Pretty soon it was no longer our music. No Negro can play New Orleans jazz today with a conscience. A few old ones still do, but no coloured man listens to them. They might just play it for the whites. Even though the experts have proved that there's no blacker music.

You see, as soon as we have a music, the white man comes and imitates it. We've now had jazz for fifty years, and in all those fifty years there has been not a single white man, perhaps leaving aside Bix, who has had an idea. Only the coloured men have ideas. But if you see who's got the famous names: they're all white.

What can we do? We must go on inventing something new all the time. When we have it, the whites will take it from us, and we have to start all over again. It is as though we were being hunted.

Such black racialism was not necessarily the only political attitude of the revolutionary young players, but it illustrates the rather emotional and primitive general resentment which almost certainly prevailed among them over more mature and sophisticated views. Very few black jazz artists in and after the 1930s were associated with the labour and communist movements, but even among those few I can think of no pioneers of modern jazz. However, it is possible that some of these may have played, among other symbols of rebellion, with the orthodox left-wing ones. Indeed, I suspect that left-wing politics got among the highly

specialized and insulated group of black musicians, especially outside New York, mainly through their contact with the strongly progressive band of jazz enthusiasts and critics; and these, as we shall see in the chapter on the jazz public, were markedly out of sympathy with the new musical developments. However, it is important to remember that the new developments of jazz, however abstract and formal at first sight, expressed a political attitude. The very slogan ‘art for art’s sake’ (or, as the pioneer revolutionary, John Birks Gillespie said, ‘I play for musicians’) must be translated, at least some of the time, into some such terms as: ‘Jazz is an art-music, not just entertainment, and as Negroes we demand attention for it as such.’

The new intellectualism of jazzmen found expression in a variety of ways, some of them surprising. For instance, the fashionable costume of the new player was no longer simply a variant of the full-dress regalia of the labourers’ king who is in the money, but a derivation from the dress of nineteenth-century Parisian bohemian intellectuals. Heavily rimmed glasses (even when not needed), a goatee, a beret, perhaps a long cigarette holder or meerschaum pipe were the uniform of the ‘bopper’ in the middle 1940s. Carelessness and sloppiness in dress—the true ‘bop-follower’ often systematically avoided pressing his suits—became fashionable.⁸ Reading and orthodox culture had never been essential qualifications of the jazz player, but in the new era it became a distinct asset to be able to say, like Thelonious Sphere Monk, a particularly characteristic pioneer of the new music, that ‘we liked Ravel, Stravinsky, Debussy, Prokofieff, Schoenberg, and maybe we were a little influenced by them’.⁹ This is the generation of players that started buying Dalis when in funds, and around which talk of psychoanalysis and existentialism flows.

The rebellion against the inferiority of the black and the traditional forms of jazz expression which were identified with it (‘Uncle Tom Music’) is equally evident in the behaviour of the new players. Among some—especially the latest, most intellectualized generation which has emerged since 1950—it took the form of a deliberate turning away from the simple extrovert noises, the spontaneous emotions of the traditional musician, and the instruments that had always carried them. Trumpets

were played as though they were flutes, drums were reduced to a whisper, wind instruments were sometimes eliminated entirely. Groups like the Modern Jazz Quartet, reacting against the old ways by anti-bohemianism, appear on the stage in faultless morning or evening dress, bowing stiffly and with expressionless faces to applause. *Not* to play like a music-hall act and a clown, *not* to behave even offstage like the old-style player who looks for a night club and some whisky and a chick, and a band to sit in with, as soon as he comes off the job: such is their ambition. An even more obvious form of revolt against inferiority, which a leading group of the new players shared with other Northern big-city blacks, was mass conversion to Mohammedanism. The new music was played, among others, by Abdullah ibn Buhaina (Art Blakey, the drummer), Sahib Shahab (Edmund Gregory, alto), Abdul Hamid (McKinley Dorham, trumpet, tenor), Liaquat Ali Salaam (Kenny Clarke, drums), Ibrahim ibn Ismail (Walter Bishop Jr, piano) and other sons of the Prophet, though most of the actual founders have done little more than put on an occasional turban. The new Moslems studied the Koran in translation, tried to learn Arabic, and propagated the faith. It would be easy, but wrong, to make fun of such gestures of revolt. The best judgement on them is contained in a small dialogue between Dizzy Gillespie and the arranger Gil Fuller, who watched one such band of Moslem boppers break rehearsal to bow towards Mecca:

Dizzy's eyes filled with tears. 'They been hurt', he explained, 'and they're tryin' to get away from it'.

'It's the last resort of guys who don't know which way to turn', said Fuller impatiently.

'East', said Dizzy. 'They turn east'.^{[10](#)}

The attitude of the new musicians, as well as their music, thus expressed the peculiar ambiguities of this generation of black intellectual rebellion. It was political, but expressed itself in abstraction and formalism. It was black, but expressed itself at least partly in the adoption of the patterns and clichés, the modes of orthodox (i.e. white) culture, a fact which made the task of the jazzman twice as difficult.

The new musician and the new music thus paradoxically undermined the racialism they intended to propagate. It is black, and desperately anxious to compete with the whites as *black* music: the 'respectable' ambition of the modern jazz musician is no longer simply to be accepted as a man who plays Bach, or as a composer of classical music, but as a man who plays a music which is as complex as Bach *but based on a specifically black foundation*, the blues. At the same time his rebellion—even when he attempts to side-step this effect by a flight into Mohammedanism or some other non-white culture—takes him farther away from the specifically black musical idiom of the old jazz, and from the cultural situation of the old jazzman which, though not particularly determined by skin colour, was sharply distinct from orthodox and respectable culture. His paradox is that, though he wishes to be a much more conscious and complete challenger of white cultural supremacy than his predecessors, his very challenge assimilates him to the white pattern. The jazzman of New Orleans, or even of Kansas City, represented a form of art, a way of the creative artist, a pattern of relations between art and society, which were as different from that of the orthodox world of symphonies, chamber music, and opera as the Byzantine painter and mosaicist is from the world of the Venice Biennale, or the heroic bard from the modern novelist. The 'modern' jazzman represents the same type of minority *avant-garde* music as his white equivalents in Paris or New York. He differs from them only as, say, the non-representationalist differs from the expressionist painter. Hence the modern jazzman is rapidly evolving into a figure familiar to anyone who follows the history of twentieth-century Western arts. His 'blackness' (i.e. the special traditions of the culturally unorthodox world from which he has sprung) becomes increasingly irrelevant.

With one exception. The new type of *avant-garde* jazzman may evolve into another version of the modern Western intellectual, but he had evolved out of the old self-made, outcast, entertainer. The startling fact about the 'modern' movement is that all its pioneers are or were jazzmen of the old plebeian type. Dizzy Gillespie (born 1917) is one of nine children of a bricklayer from a hole in South Carolina, who came up through the ordinary jazz-band world. Charlie Parker (1920–55) was a slum-child from Kansas City. Kenny Clarke, Art Blakey, Max Roach,

Chico Hamilton, the drummers (born 1914, 1919, 1925, 1921 respectively) learned their music as it came. Charlie Christian (1919–42), who revolutionized the guitar, Fats Navarro, (1923–50), the trumpeter, were just provincial players who came up somewhere in Oklahoma and Florida. No doubt some of them had a better education, including musical training, than the men of Armstrong's generation; but they can in no sense be regarded as people who owe anything substantial to conservatories or to the advantages of a black middle-class background, or even—since their music repelled most jazz intellectuals—to outside influences. It was among such players that the musical and social revolution of the jazz musician began round about 1941–2.

If we are to understand it, we must look at another characteristic phenomenon of the Northern black generations, the 'hipster', whose evolution is intertwined with that of the modern jazzman. There is by now a good deal of literature about the hipster, most of which reads like a psychoanalyst's case diagnoses, and for a good reason:¹¹ because the hipsters do not explain themselves, and show the world only their symptoms, which have to be interpreted. But the hipster is there all right. He began to appear at the central metropolitan street-corners of Northern ghettos between the wars, though it is not impossible that he existed in embryo in Harlem even earlier. At any rate, he does not belong to the South. He can, I daresay, still be seen in the American black equivalents of Soho and Saint Germain des Prés, dressed in whatever is the uniform of his fraternity—before the vogue of the bopper's costume it used to be the 'zoot suit', with its epaulette shoulders, its frock coat hanging almost to the pavement, and its peg-bottom trousers. He wore (and perhaps still wears) his face like a mask, for ostensible emotion was taboo. He talked jive-talk which nobody ought to understand. He lived 'for kicks'—jazz, sex, marihuana, or any other stimulants that were going. He was not like other people, the 'squares'. He was beyond the law, beyond human emotion, beyond ambition, and money, beyond good and evil; he was against the white and black *status quo*—the 'Uncle Toms'—but he did not know what he was for.

We are today fairly familiar with the hipster's type of negative, emotional, anarchic revolt: older generations have watched it among the

young post-war generations in a number of countries, since the ‘existentialists’ of the post-liberation Left Bank in Paris gave it its first orthodox habitation and name. (Their American white equivalents, as Norman Mailer has correctly pointed out, have actually borrowed their idiom from the black hipster: ‘In Greenwich village a *ménage à trois* was completed—the bohemian and the juvenile delinquent came face-to-face with the Negro, and the [white] hipster was a fact in American life.’) The international symbols of this revolt, like the late film star James Dean, are familiar to all. But in spite of this convergence, the original Harlem hipster was not, like the lost generation of Saint Germain des Prés, a derivation from orthodox upper-class culture, such as is still oddly reflected in the Edwardian toff’s outfit of English working-class teddy-boys, or the pseudo-art-school styles of East End working-class girls, but a specialized development of the ghetto of labourers and outcasts.

The Harlem hipster ‘functioned’ in some respects like the jazz player. His social origins were certainly similar: he owed nothing to education or orthodox cultural influence. He was (Mezz Mezzrow is almost certainly right on this point) the would-be smart and able youngster with ambitions, ‘keyed up with the effort to see and hear everything all at once, because that’s how bottom-dogs ought to be unless they want to get lost in the shuffle.’¹² His chief achievement, jive-talk—for talk was the hipster’s only triumph—is a continuous, ever-renewed virtuoso collective improvisation which depends on talent, on speed, on imagination, and a sort of primitive verbal bravura. Nobody ought to be able to talk jive-talk, even if he learnt all yesterday’s or even today’s jive vocabulary by heart, just as nobody is able to play like Armstrong or Charlie Parker even with the most painstaking imitation. For the hipster sophistication and lightning speed on the uptake were everything. His expression, as has been said, was ‘the physiognomy of astuteness’. Whoever needed the faintest explanation of even the most cryptic gesture or statement was by definition a square. Like bop jazz, only in verbal terms, jive-talk was a set of variations on themes and rhythms unstated, because assumed. Just so the Max Roach Quintet call their derivation from the well-known song *All the Things You Are, Prince Albert*. Anyone who does not know that

the theme played is derived from the harmonies of the (unnamed) *All the Things You Are* is a musical square.

Mezzrow is almost certainly right in believing that hipsterdom represented a more urgent, aggressive, and higher ambition than anything in the old South, quite apart from the passionate effort to show ‘that they’re not the ounce-brained, stuttering, tongue-tied Sambos of the blackface vaudeville routines, the Lazybones of the comic strips, the Old Moses of the Southern plantation’.¹³ In his way, the hipster aspired to the white man’s status as a professional, an intellectual, in fact to just those achievements which are almost beyond the longest reach of the ghetto boy without money or skill, with a caricature of schooling, without a background or even a tradition that such ambitions are desirable. That is perhaps why the only people who have come close to realizing the hipster’s ambition in their own field are the jazz musicians. And that is probably why the ambition of the ordinary hipster, who is far more often a man without career or achievement, turns from breaking out of inferiority into contracting out of it. At all events the hipster described in the post-1945 years is not the same man as the one whose ‘fraternal order’ Mezz Mezzrow joined around 1930. He is the collective ‘outsider’. He does not live in this world, but escapes from it into a world of bop music, which the square cannot understand, and *pot* (marihuana), of ‘kicks’—sensations—which the square cannot feel. ‘He may earn his living as a petty criminal, a hobo, a roustabout, or a free-lance moving man’, it does not matter how, for the hipster (whose very essence in Mezzrow’s description was *action*) no longer acts, but simply exists. Even his one triumph, jive-talk, seems to have contracted into a featureless, simplified vocabulary of monosyllables, grunts, and tacit gestures, which serves almost exclusively to differentiate him from the square. Only two things remain of his former self: a total refusal to conform to the squares and a savage integrity about his own standards and the things he likes.

No doubt there are other elements in the hipster’s make-up also, on which the more psychologically minded literature has dwelt. In a way the ambitious slum youngster of the second generation of Northern black immigrants is doubly rootless, having lost the subordinate, but fairly

obvious, place of the New Orleans slum boy in his community. The obvious, uniformed cohesion of the hipster against the squares is certainly in part due to the desire to be in *some* community, if only that of those without social roots. The observers who note that the hipster classifies what other people would call good as 'solid' or 'in there' (i.e. *somewhere*) and an undesirable state as *nowhere*, may have a point. For in a sense he is nowhere socially or as an individual. If he will succeed, he is nowhere yet; if he fails, or gives up the struggle, he remains nowhere, except in the private world of drugs, or sex, or some other subjective sensation.

It is easy to see how the young revolutionary musicians fit into the general scene of hipsterdom; for the hipster is just such a home-grown ghetto intellectual or artist as they, only less successful. The modes of behaviour of the revolutionaries, deliberately shocking not only to non-musicians but even to older musicians, were those of the hipster: for instance, the refusal to abide by the old-established code of manners which obliges the soloist who is about to finish his chorus to nod to the next man to give him his cue; the apparent boredom with which the most radical musical innovations were played; the habit of playing with one's back to the audience, shuffling on stage anytime and offstage without a look at the end of a solo. If the old players' ideal had been social, the new ones now modelled themselves on the Rimbauds and Modiglianis of orthodox art; or more exactly, they reproduced their ways independently. They doped heavily, to the disgust of the older men, for whom whisky, women, and an occasional stick of tea were all that a decent musician needed. There is little doubt—though again it would be invidious to name names, even those which have come before police courts—that drug addiction was much more widespread among the modernists than among any previous group of jazz players. There are life-histories among them, such as that of the earliest and greatest of the moderns, and perhaps the only genius among them, Charlie 'Yardbird' Parker, which have the horrifying, helpless inevitability of the lone wolves of modern romantic culture. There was no more pleasure or success in the life of Parker than in that of Van Gogh, even though his talent was much more rapidly appreciated. There was merely the total inability to get on any terms with the world, and the compulsion to play what must be played in the face of

the world. The artist has become the wild beast, who is by definition caged wherever he is, for every conceivable society must be a prison for him.

Since those early days of the jazz revolution the harshest outlines of revolt have been a little softened, though no doubt somewhere there are still young players who see themselves—jazzwise—in the same defiant and partly self-pitying terms as each new *avant-garde* of orthodox artists. Dizzy Gillespie now undertakes official cultural missions for the U.S. Government. J. J. Johnson, the trombonist, is a long way from the days—from 1952 to 1954—when he had to earn his living as a blueprint inspector, occasionally gigging in his spare time. The Modern Jazz Quartet was reviewed by a classical music critic for the *Sunday Times* and aroused violent controversy among the readers of the *Observer*. In fact, it has taken the jazz revolutionaries a great deal less time to win orthodox recognition than it ever took a Benny Carter or a Dickie Wells to get accepted as a serious artist outside a tiny circle of unknown enthusiasts. And yet, the revolution cannot be undone. The young jazz musician today is socially and individually a different person from the Armstrongs and Bessie Smiths, and even from the Fats Wallers and Lionel Hamptons of the past.

The white musician in America need not be discussed at such length. In a sense, he has practically from the start been the outsider type, playing a music which he knew to be misunderstood by the public. ‘When will we ever be able to earn our living playing hot?’ asked Frank Teschemacher, the famous Chicago clarinetist. The question was rhetorical. Teschemacher and his friends knew perfectly well from the moment that they began to imitate the black players that this kind of music was not saleable to the white dancing public for ‘jazz’ in the 1920s. The most they could hope to do with it was to play a few college dances where some of the students might be for it, to play the kind of night clubs or halls where the manager and the public didn’t mind what the noise was, so long as it was loud, and to make an occasional record. If they wanted to earn their living by music, at least after 1927–8 or so, they had to play in ‘sweet’ or ‘pop’ bands. The uncompromising white musician thus faced the problem of the misunderstood and isolated artist from the beginning; indeed, who knows how many of them had not

chosen to play jazz just because it was their private paradise, which neither fathers nor 'square' friends could share, a protest against the old generation, against the 150 per cent Americanism of the lush decade before 1929? Howard Becker the sociologist has described a group of such young white jazz musicians in the Chicago of the 'cool' era, but the description, with a few changes, could stand for the 1920s also: they were sons of good middle-class Americans. They protested, totally and absolutely, against all aspects of the 'American way of life', by playing their jazz, by frequenting only musicians and night-club girls, by wolfing existentialist or other guaranteed anti-bourgeois philosophers.¹⁴ No generation of white jazz players since the start (with the possible exception of the poor New Orleans whites who simply played the New Orleans way and thought no more about it) has been without such a contingent of rebels. And none has been without its quota of self-lacerating and doomed romantic artists, drinking themselves quietly into an early death, survived only by their records. Bix Beiderbecke, the greatest of white jazzmen, was such a one in the 1920s, and has even stimulated his novel, Dorothy Baker's *Young Man with a Horn*. Bunny Berigan, another trumpeter, paralleled him in the thirties. One lasted twenty-nine years, the other thirty-three.

The classical white jazzman, a pocket Hemingway or Scott Fitzgerald, equally suspended between the whisky bottle, the wisecrack, and the jam session, was a refugee from the bourgeois world. However, there was also the non-classical white jazzman, whose situation was much more like that of the black musician. He was an entertainer or popular music player by trade, and not primarily a crusader or a deliberate castaway. This was certainly the position of most of the original white New Orleans players, the majority of whom came from social strata like the Sicilian immigrants, whose social position in the hierarchy of the old South was not a great deal higher than the blacks': at any rate they were also sometimes lynched.^{**} 'Wingy' Manone, for instance, a slum child from New Orleans, and near neighbour of the young Armstrong, played music like Armstrong, worked the habitual circuits of the small-time Delta musician—Louisiana, Texas, the middle-Mississippi valley, later

Chicago, New York, and the West Coast—and earned his living as a ‘comedy personality’ as much as by his trumpet.

Southern or Northern, the genuine professional musician type seems to have lacked something of the hunted purism of the refugee jazzman. George Brunies, for instance, an excellent New Orleans trombonist, seems to have been quite happy in his berth with the terrible band of Ted Lewis from 1923 to 1935, and did not feel his jazz status was jeopardized by lying down on his back with another musician on his stomach, while he operated a trombone slide with his feet. Ray Bauduc (drums), another white New Orleans player of professional stock, seems to have been content to earn his living solidly in three main jobs from 1926 to 1942, with little of that frantic freelance gigging and vagabondage through ephemeral combinations which was so characteristic of the classic purist. However, as we have seen (Chapter 8) the economy of the jazz business is such that a great deal of casual work is inevitable, whatever the tastes or compulsions of musicians, and post-New Orleans white pros, especially those who got their start in the wild 1920s, when jobs were never short, have often had a varied and casual career.

In Europe, where no musician could earn even pocket money, let alone a living, by playing jazz until the rise of a specific jazz public in the 1930s and 40s, the ordinary professional dance-band or variety musician formed an even more important component of jazz. Socially, in Britain at least, he came from either musical or show-business families, or more usually from a working-class background, with the usual admixture of bohemian ex-clerks or students. The working-class background was inevitably strong, since the most obvious school in which the musician learned his trade was one which, both as a professional military and as an amateur civilian institution, has long been part of the British working class, especially the skilled part: the brass band.¹⁵ That is why we frequently find such dance-band musicians as did not turn professional immediately in characteristic proletarian professions like printing, factory work, engineering, as toolmakers’ apprentices, in cotton mills, as professional footballers, and the like, and why we find many even among those who started as clerks—mostly, one would guess,

the sons of working-class fathers—beginning their careers in brass bands.¹⁶

These men were not necessarily jazz players, though they were the most likely to come into contact with jazz, through touring players and singers, through the jazz influence in the pop music they had to play, or because the work of dance musicians is so boring that they were quite likely to seize upon jazz as a creative relief from routine. The few early players who came straight to ‘rigorous’ jazz had naturally to fit into this milieu, since it was the only one in which they could make a living by playing their music at least sometimes. The dance-band profession was thus the earliest nursery of European jazz, and patronized it even while it remained ‘commercial’. Thus Jack Hylton’s Band, which has had a poor press among the aficionados, because its claim to play ‘jazz’ in the 1920s and early 30s rightly irritates the purists, not only provided a refuge for several jazzmen of stature, but actually did its best to encourage them whenever possible (e.g. by hiring Philippe Brun the trumpeter, André Ekyan the saxophonist, two uncompromising French performers, and the great Coleman Hawkins). Henry Hall, of the B.B.C. band, hired Benny Carter, the American star, to arrange for him. The dance-band profession, in fact, made possible what jazz there was in Britain—at least until the middle thirties—and provided its first fifth column within commercial music.

Since the end of the thirties, the rise of the specialized jazz public has produced a new kind of white musician: the amateur jazz enthusiast, who has, in the nature of things, often turned into the professional player. Since this type of player shares his origins and approach to jazz with the non-playing aficionado, he can be conveniently discussed in the chapter on the jazz public.

Whatever the character of the white jazz players, one thing has always—until recently at least—separated them from the black ones: their freedom of movement. The blacks could not leave. Playing music (for self-educated players, playing *their* kind of music) or some other form of entertainment were their only ways of earning a living unless they wanted to be unskilled labourers, and their only way of making a way in the world. For most of jazz history the black men, who found jazz jobs

hard to get, had not the choice of joining a radio station's staff band or a classical orchestra, or working as a staff composer or arranger in films or on the air, or simply settling down to sell insurance or to journalism or business, like those middle-aged Chicagoan former jazz players who still meet annually, as 'Sons of Bix', to commemorate the idol of their youth. The colour bar stopped them. Most of them could not even retire into ordinary, prosperous pop bands—to bands like Whiteman's, Roger Wolfe Kahn's, or Ted Lewis's—for the black equivalents to the big white pop enterprises were fewer, much less prosperous, and very much less stable. The black musician was therefore obliged to stick to his music, which was his only prop. Perhaps this helps to account for his superiority in execution and in ideas over the white. For white musicians *had* ideas. The group of white New York players who recorded in the later twenties, with or without the addition of brilliant Mid-Westerners like Bix Beiderbecke, shows signs of anticipating many of the musical ideas of 'modern jazz' fifteen years before the blacks, but it did not develop them. For what happened? 'Miff' Mole, the trombonist, went into commercial bands and radio, where he played mainly classical music for a decade. Eddie Lang, the guitarist, went to Hollywood to make a film about Paul Whiteman and then became Bing Crosby's accompanist. Frank Trumbauer, the saxophonist, stayed with Whiteman from 1927 to 1936 and eventually left music altogether for the Civil Aeronautics Administration. And so on. They were good jazzmen, but they did not have the hard compulsion to express themselves and to win their place in the world through developing their jazz, and only through it, which drove the Charlie Parkers, the Gillespies, and the Thelonious Monks. Only those who were congenitally and implacably 'anti-commercial' had this compulsion. But was it, in their case, always a compulsion to make music, or merely one to break away, to recapture their youthful paradise on Lake Michigan, to live the bohemian life of the anti-bourgeois? Perhaps both. But many of those whose compulsion was most clearly that of the dedicated creative musician have died, like Bix, or Berigan, or Lang, or Teschemacher.

Such are the forces which have made jazz musicians what they are. For they do not start as men of a special type. There are certain kinds of human activity, such as a facility for lightning calculation, which are very

unevenly distributed by nature: to all intents and purposes either you have them or you have not. But the gift of expressing oneself through music is not among these. As Johnny St Cyr said: 'You see, the average working man is very musical.' Naturally the gap between the best jazz musicians and the worst is immense, and there are very few of the best; but until it was turned into a self-conscious art-music which requires preliminary expertise, jazz was better suited than any other twentieth-century art to give artistic expression to the ordinary man, and especially (in the blues) the ordinary woman. Everyone has something to say, as the makers of films with non-professional actors discovered. Jazz, which grew up by completely adapting its technique to what ordinary people had to say, even to the point of allowing musical illiterates and those with a rather poor technique to make valid artistic creations, required less preliminary selection among its musicians than any other art. Perhaps it tended to attract those who were inarticulate in any other medium (including words) more than the others, for a man who can say what he wants in prose cannot get the extraordinary sense of happiness and release which comes from becoming eloquent with a trumpet or in a song. Louis Armstrong without his trumpet is a rather limited man; with it he speaks with the precision and compassion of the recording angel.

The jazz musician was therefore, and still is to a large extent, nearer to the ordinary randomly chosen citizen than most other artists, and jazz has been able to draw upon a wider reservoir of potential artists than any other art in our century; in extreme cases, such as New Orleans, on virtually the whole of the population. Only his way of life has tended to set him apart, and has in turn tended to attract certain types of recruits—whether those with a special vocation for music, or with a special taste for the milieu, or those who happened to find the trade particularly convenient. The frontiers of jazz have been open towards the world of the non-musician. This has been one of the causes of its strength and vigour. If it becomes increasingly like the other orthodox arts it is likely that these frontiers will be closed, their passage being allowed only to selected entrants. If this happens, the character of jazz will change fundamentally, though one would not like to guess in what way.

Notes

1. *Hear Me Talkin' ...*, 28–9. A very full treatment in Lomax *Mr Jelly-Roll*, 67–111.
2. *Hear Me Talkin' ...*, 31.
3. *Ibid.*, 46.
4. *Ibid.*, 232.
5. *Ibid.*, 231, 238, 240.
6. Handy, 273.
7. Berendt, 93–5.
8. Condon and Gehman, 214, 224–5.
9. *Ibid.*, 228.
10. *Ibid.*, 230.
11. Mezzrow and Wolfe, Chapter 12, is one of the earliest and most useful accounts. A. Broyard, *A Portrait of the Hipster* (*Partisan Review* 1948), and Norman Mailer, *The White Negro*—*Superficial Reflection on the Hipster* (*Dissent*, Summer 1957), are fair specimens.
12. Mezzrow and Wolfe, 223–4.
13. *Ibid.*, 225.
14. Howard Becker, *The Professional Dance Musician and His Audience* (*American Journal of Sociology*, September 1951).
15. J. F. Russell and J. H. Elliott, *The Brass Band Movement* (London 1936).
16. I take these data from the valuable, but fragmentary biographical articles about members of British dance bands in the early thirties, as given in the *Melody Maker* for that period.

* Henderson (born 1898) and Lunceford (born 1902) actually had a university education, which put them among the most exclusive élite of black Americans at the time.

† Another factor may account for the apparent prominence of musicians from the skilled working-class in New Orleans: the caste system which kept many of the unskilled immigrant players in the unrespected and unregarded social zone of the blues-singers. Such a one was the trumpeter Chris Kelly ‘who played for those blues, cotton-picking Negroes, what they called in the old days “yard and field Negroes”.’ ‘They were real primitive people,’ says Danny Barker, the guitarist, related to Creoles, ‘who worked in the fields, worked hard. They wore those box-backed suits and hats with two-coloured bands on them, shoes with diamonds in their toe, or a two-dollar gold piece in the toe ... Chris Kelly played for those people ... He worked all the little towns. He talked a real broken patois, African almost. The Creoles couldn’t understand him. They didn’t like him and they didn’t want to see him on the street, because he played for what was supposed to be the bad element. When he would play a street parade, mostly advertising, all the kitchen mechanics would come out on the corner, shaking. The Creoles would hate to see that.’ Creoles and other old city musicians would have all the townsman’s contempt for the country black (Cf. the *American Guides* series for *Arkansas* for this phenomenon in the 1930s.) Old town musicians in New Orleans set the standards, had the connexions which got a man engagements on tour and in other towns, in other words they have decided—*via* the discographers and researchers—which New Orleans musicians live in history and which do not. Buddy Bolden is a legend, though no record of him survives. Chris Kelly is a footnote in history, rescued thanks to the loyal memory of some minor New Orleans musicians. See *Hear Me Talkin' to Ya*. pp. 56–7.

‡ Those who did, were embittered by its neglect. Thus Fats Waller, a musician of sound classical training and superb technique, whose favourite instrument was the organ, and whose

main ambition was to excel as an interpreter of J. S. Bach's ecclesiastical works, was never given the chance to record in this field.

§ Fortunately for jazz, in Harlem a superlatively vivid rhythm was sometimes gimmick enough. Chick Webb, the crippled little drummer, made his and his band's reputation largely through his 'swing'.

¶ See Chapter 3. The subject is further discussed in Chapter 11.

|| Among older middle-class musicians, other than those already mentioned, we may note Benny Carter, 1907, clarinet, sax, and arranger (Wilberforce Univ.), Teddy Wilson, 1912, piano (Tuskegee), Billy Eckstine, 1914, pop singer and band-leader (Howard), and Fats Waller, 1904, piano and pop singer.

** Among the Italians in early white New Orleans (or 'Dixieland') jazz we note La Rocca and Sbarbaro, Manone, Bonano, Rappolo, and the Loyacanos, who probably have the historic distinction (to which I draw attention for the benefit of the cultural authorities of the Albanian People's Republic) of being the first jazz players in history to come of Albanian stock. Their ancestors fled from the Turks to Sicily, and their home-town still speaks and considers itself Albanian.